

Time Series and Fourier Analysis

EES 4891/5891

Probability & Statistics for Geosciences

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Learning Goals

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- Learn what makes time series data different from other kinds of data.
- Learn what autocorrelation is, and why it matters.
- Focus on periodic variations:
 - Sources of periodic signals in environmental data
 - Fourier's Theorem
 - Fourier Transforms
 - Power spectra and spectral power density
- Doing Fourier Transforms in R with Fast Fourier Transforms (FFT)
- Learn what aliasing is
 - Why it's a problem
 - How to avoid it

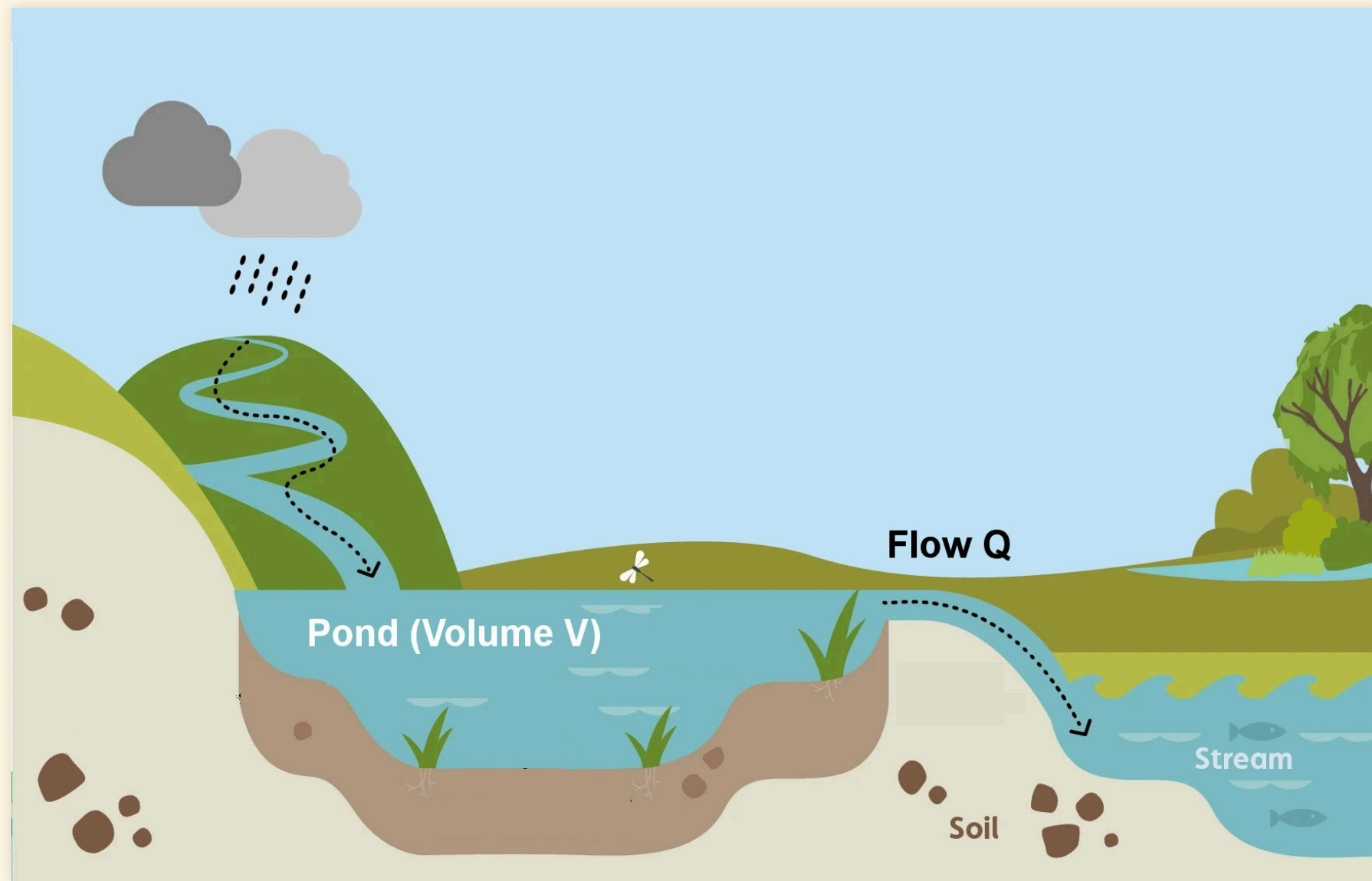
Time Series

Time Series

- Time Series:
 - Observations that are ordered in time
 - We will only consider data that are evenly spaced
 - There are advanced methods for irregularly spaced data, but we won't study them in this course
- Why are time series different?
 - Causal relationships
 - Earlier events may influence later ones
- Independent, identically distributed (iid) data
 - Each observation is independent of all the others
 - It doesn't matter in what order they occur
- Time series:
 - Observations may not be independent
 - Later observations may correlated with earlier ones

Example

- Example:
 - Concentration of nitrate in a pond of volume V
 - Fed by one stream, drained by another:
 - Volume Q exchanged every day



- Time zero, a rainstorm washes mass M of nitrate into the pond
 - Initial concentration M/V
 - 1 day later

$$\frac{M}{V} \left(\frac{V - Q}{V} \right) = \frac{M}{V} \left(1 - \frac{Q}{V} \right)$$

- 2 days later:

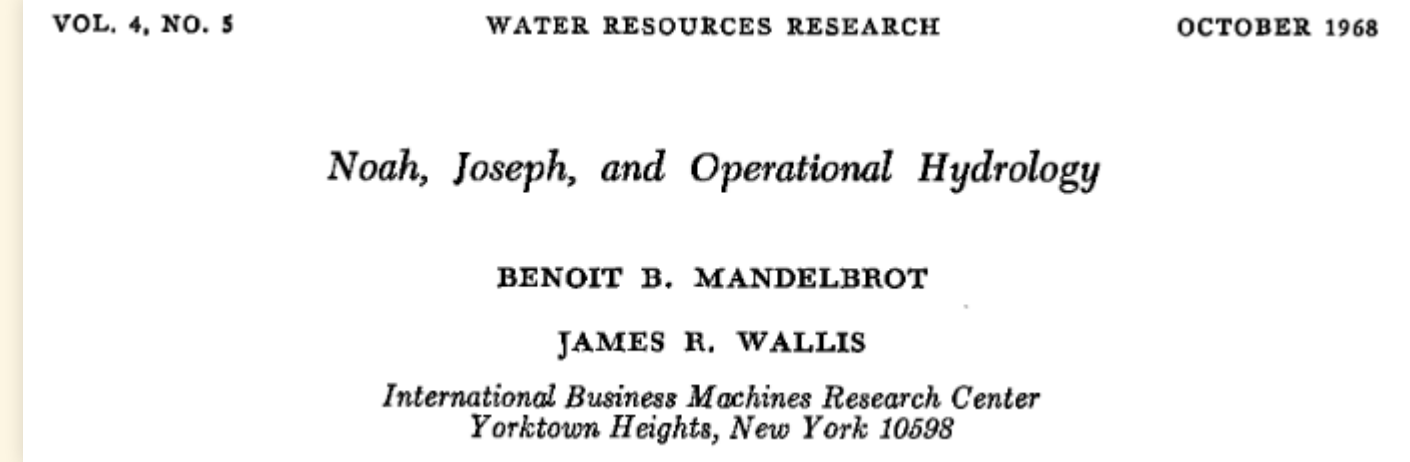
$$\frac{M}{V} \left(1 - \frac{Q}{V} \right)^2$$

- 3 days later:

$$\frac{M}{V} \left(1 - \frac{Q}{V} \right)^3$$

More Complicated Example

- What does a “100-year flood” mean?
 - A probability of 0.01 that there will be a flood in any year.
- If there is a 100-year flood this year, what is the probability that there will be another 100-year flood next year?
 - Most people will say 0.01
 - In fact, a 100-year flood is slightly more likely if there was a big flood the year before
 - And slightly less likely if there wasn't a flood the year before.



- Autocorrelated noise
 - Regular regression:
$$y_j = f(x_j) + \epsilon_j,$$
 - ϵ_j are iid: no correlation
 - Time-series: ϵ_{j+1} may be correlated with ϵ_j
 - Autocorrelation
- Wet years follow wet years
- Dry years follow dry years

Periodic Variations

- Many environmental time series show periodic variations:
 - Hourly data show diurnal cycles
 - Daily or monthly data show annual cycles
 - Brightness of the sun has an 11-year cycle
 - Ice-ages have Milankovitch cycles (41 kyear, 100 kyear, etc.)
- Time-frequency duality
 - Any time-series x_j , with N observations sampled at intervals τ can be expressed as a sum of N periodic functions with frequencies from $1/\tau$ to N/τ .

- Time-series: $x_j, j = 1, \dots, N$,
 - Sampled at intervals τ : $t_j = j\tau$
- Periodic representation (Fourier Theorem):

$$x_j = \frac{a_0}{2} + \sum_{k=1}^N a_k \cos(k\omega t_j) + b_k \sin(k\omega t_j)$$

$$\omega = \frac{2\pi}{N\tau}$$

$$a_k = \frac{2}{N} \sum_{j=1}^N x_j \cos(k\omega t_j)$$

$$b_k = \frac{2}{N} \sum_{j=1}^N x_j \sin(k\omega t_j)$$

Complex Numbers

- Complex number $z = u + iv$, where $i = \sqrt{-1}$

$$e^{ix} = \cos(x) + i \sin(x)$$

- Fourier Theorem with complex numbers:

$$x_j = \sum_{k=-N}^N c_k e^{ik\omega t_j}$$

$$\omega = \frac{2\pi}{N\tau}$$

$$c_k = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{2}(a_k - ib_k) & k \geq 0 \\ \frac{1}{2}(a_k + ib_k) & k < 0 \end{cases}$$

Fourier Transform

- Continuous function $f(t)$, t varies continuously from $-\infty$ to $+\infty$:
 - Fourier transform $g(\omega)$:
- Discrete observations: x_j sampled at N evenly-spaced intervals $t_j = j\tau$
 - Discrete Fourier transform z_k :

$$f(t) = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\infty}^{+\infty} g(\omega) e^{+i\omega t} d\omega$$

$$g(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{+\infty} f(t) e^{-i\omega t} dt$$

$$x_j = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{k=0}^{N-1} z_k e^{+ik\omega t_j}$$

$$z_k = \sum_{j=1}^N x_j e^{-ik\omega t_j}$$

$$\omega = \frac{2\pi}{N\tau}$$

Power Spectrum

- Parseval's Theorem:

- Energy in a signal $f(t)$

$$\begin{aligned} E &= \int_{-\infty}^{+\infty} |f(t)|^2 dt \\ &= \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |g(\omega)|^2 d\omega \end{aligned}$$

- Power spectral density

$$S(\omega) = |g(\omega)|^2$$

- Energy per interval of frequency

- Discrete Parseval's Theorem:

- Energy in a signal x_j

$$\begin{aligned} E &= \sum_{j=1}^N |x_j|^2 \\ &= \frac{1}{N} \sum_{k=0}^{N-1} |z_k|^2 \end{aligned}$$

- Power spectral density

$$\begin{aligned} S(k\omega) &= |z_k|^2 \\ \omega &= \frac{2\pi}{N\tau} \end{aligned}$$

- Energy per unit of frequency

Fourier Transforms in R

Fourier Transforms in R

- `fft()`: Fast Fourier Transform

```
df <- tibble(
  i = seq(200),
  t = 2 * i / length(i),
  x = 0.7 * cos(2 * pi * t * 2) +
    1.2 * cos(2 * pi * t * 6) +
    0.9 * sin(2 * pi * t * 5)
)

df_ft <- tibble(z = fft(df$x),
               i = seq_along(z),
               f = i - 1) |>
  mutate(ps = Mod(z * Conj(z)) / n(),
         f = ifelse(f > n()/2, f - n(), f) / max(df$t))
  |>
  relocate(i, f, z, ps)

head(df_ft)
```

```
## # A tibble: 6 × 4
##       i       f z                               ps
##   <int> <dbl> <cpl>                                <dbl>
## 1     1     0 -6.128431e-14+0.000000e+00i 1.88e-29
## 2     2   0.5  2.409184e-14+1.942890e-15i 2.92e-30
## 3     3     1 -6.883383e-15+3.974598e-14i 8.14e-30
## 4     4   1.5 -2.495226e-14-6.661338e-15i 3.33e-30
## 5     5     2  6.944803e+01+8.773326e+00i 2.45e+ 1
## 6     6   2.5  3.367053e-14-1.406289e-15i 5.68e-30
```

- Note: We can interpret the higher frequencies ($k > N/2$) as negative frequencies ($k \rightarrow k - N$)

$$z_k = \sum_{j=1}^N x_j e^{-ik\omega t_j}$$

$$\omega = \frac{2\pi}{N\tau}$$

$$k\omega t_j = k \frac{2\pi}{N\tau} j\tau = 2\pi jk / N$$

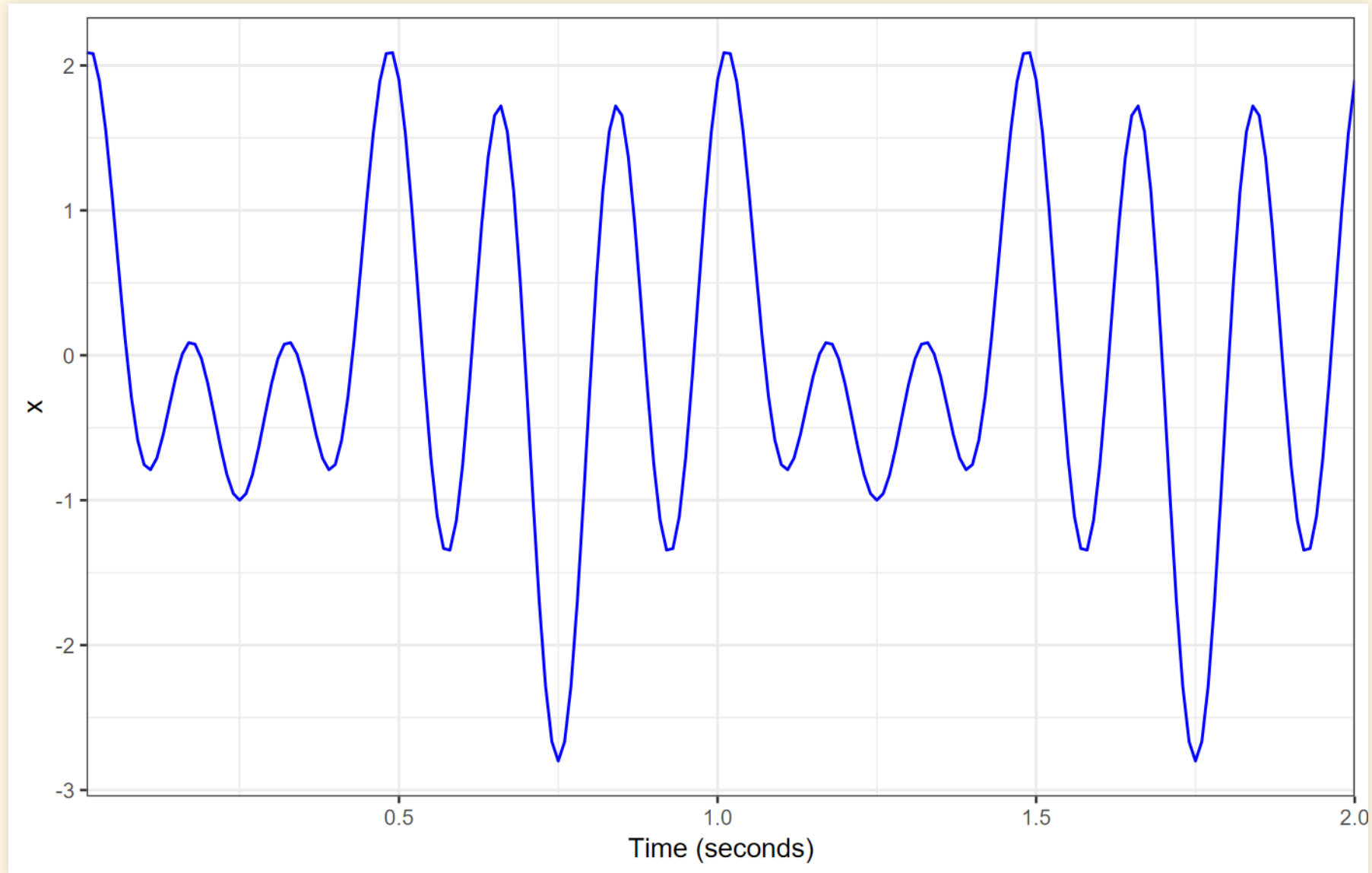
$$e^{i(k+N)\omega t_j} = e^{i2\pi j(k+N)/N} = e^{i2\pi j(k/N+1)}$$

$$e^{i2\pi(v+1)} = e^{i2\pi v},$$

so

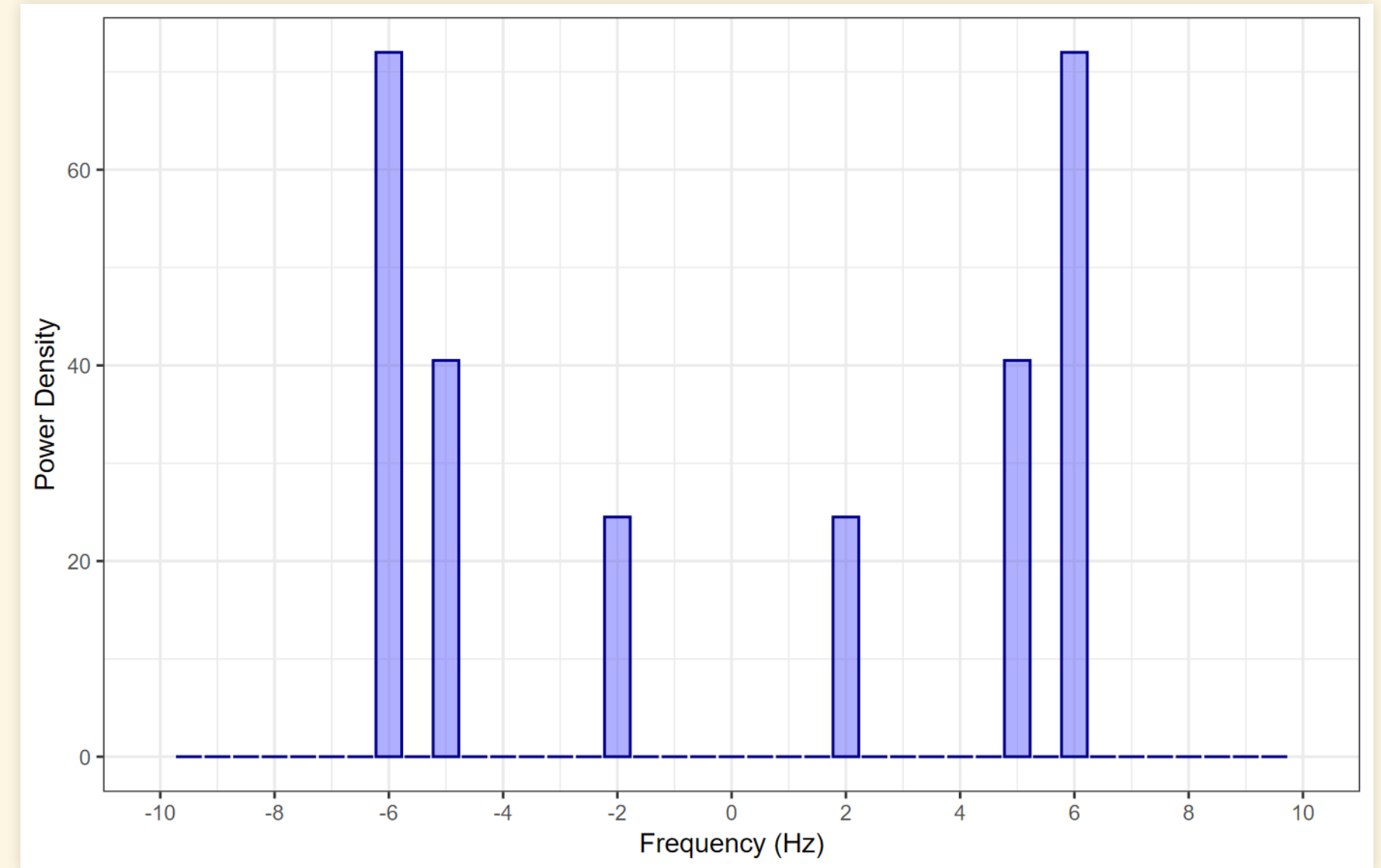
$$z_{k\pm N} = z_k$$

Plotting Data and Fourier Transform



```
summarize(df, power = sum(x^2))
```

```
## # A tibble: 1 × 1  
##   power  
##   <dbl>  
## 1    274
```



```
summarize(df_ft, power = sum(ps))
```

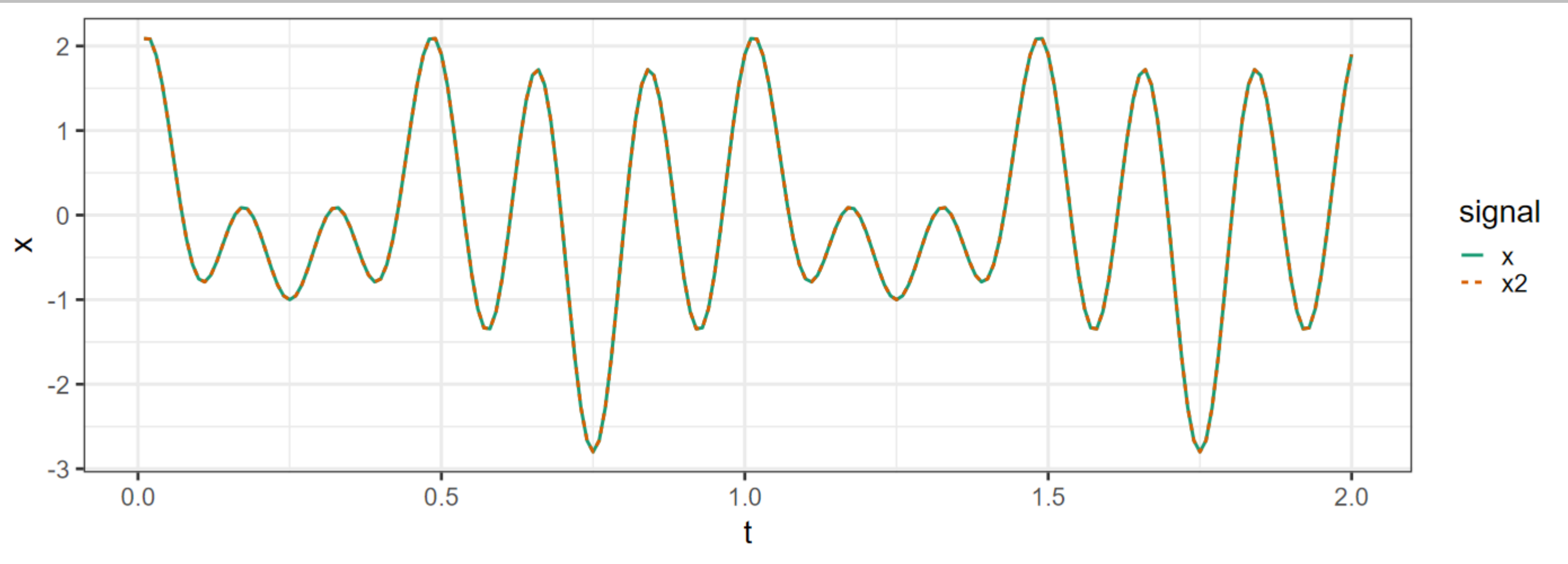
```
## # A tibble: 1 × 1  
##   power  
##   <dbl>  
## 1    274
```

Inverse Fourier Transform

```
df2 <- df |> mutate(x2 = Re(fft(df_ft$z, inverse = TRUE)) / n())  
df2 |> summarize(rmse = sqrt(mean((x - x2)^2)))
```

```
## # A tibble: 1 × 1  
##       rmse  
##   <dbl>  
## 1 4.12e-16
```

```
df2 |> pivot_longer(c(x, x2), names_to = "signal", values_to = "x") |>  
ggplot(aes(x = t, y = x, color = signal, linetype = signal)) +  
  scale_color_brewer(palette = "Dark2") +  
  geom_line(linewidth = 1)
```



Sampling

Sampling

- Remember that $z_k = z_{k \pm N}$
 - This creates a problem called “aliasing”
- If we sample N points with time interval τ , $\omega = 2\pi/(N\tau)$
 - z_0 is the coefficient for zero-frequency, $0 \times \omega$
 - z_N is the coefficient for $N\omega = 2\pi/\tau$, which means one cycle per period τ .
 - But $z_0 = z_{0+N}$, so our discrete Fourier transform can't tell the difference between constant data and data that's oscillating with period τ .
- All frequencies between $k = N/2$ and $k = N$ will appear like negative frequencies between $-N/2$ and 0.
- The highest frequency we can reliably measure is $k = N/2$, which has period 2τ
- When we sample with interval τ , any signal with frequency $f > 1/(2\tau)$ will be “aliased” and will appear in our sampled data with a frequency between $-1/(2\tau)$ and $1/(2\tau)$

Example of Aliasing

```

tau = 0.2
omega = 2 * pi * 3.2 / tau

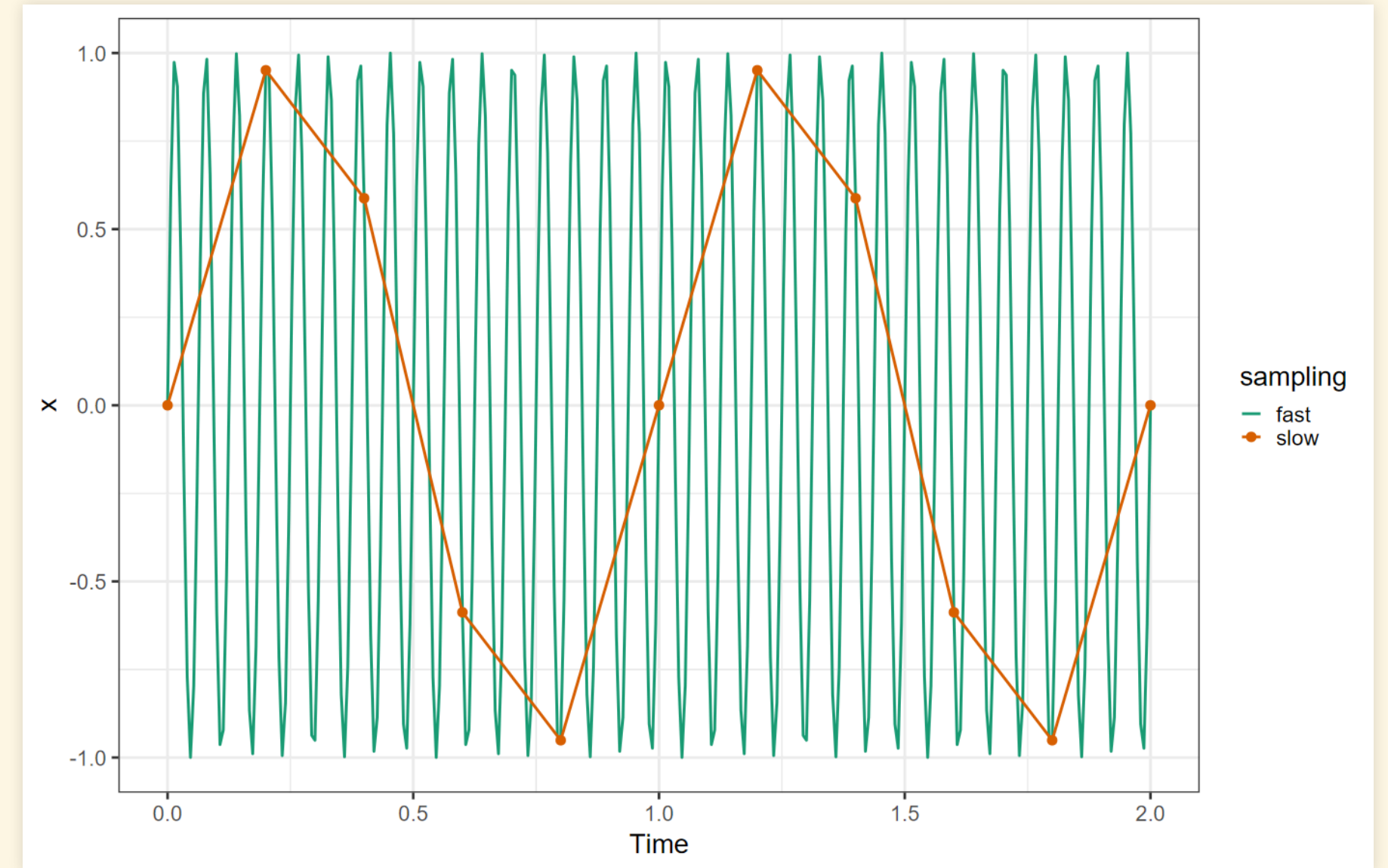
fast <- tibble(time = seq(0, 10 * tau, tau / 30),
               x = sin(time * omega),
               sampling = "fast")

slow <- tibble(time = seq(0, 10 * tau, tau),
               x = sin(time * omega),
               sampling = "slow")

df <- bind_rows(fast, slow)

ggplot(df, aes(x = time, y = x, color = sampling)) +
  geom_line(linewidth = 1) +
  geom_point(data = slow, size = 3) +
  scale_color_brewer(palette = "Dark2") +
  labs(x = "Time", y = "x")

```



- Rule: Make sure that you sample at least twice as fast as the highest frequency that appears in the signal.
 - With electronic instruments, use electronic filters to remove frequencies higher than half your sampling frequency.
 - Good data loggers will do this automatically.

